
Gaol 4.3.0

*NOT Just Another
Interval Arithmetic Library*

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This is edition 4.6 of the gaol documentation. It is consistent with version 4.3.0 of the **gaol** library.

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Recipriversexcluson. n. *A number whose existence can only be defined as being anything other than itself.*

Douglas Adams, 1982
Life, the Universe and Everything

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For the input of floating-point numbers, gaol uses the `strtord()` function written by David M. Gay, whose copyright notice follows:

```
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```

Gaol relies either on IBM APMathlib or CRlibm mathematical libraries for most floating-point operators. Both libraries are released under the GNU Lesser General Public License (see Section 20, page 73).

1

Introduction

Gaol[†] is a C++ library to perform arithmetic with floating-point intervals. The development of gaol was initiated at the *Swiss Federal Institute of Technology*, Lausanne, Switzerland, while F. Goualard was a post-doctorate fellow supported by the *Swiss National Science Foundation*. It started as a limited version of *Jail* (now *halloween*), a templated C++ interval library developed during Goualard's PhD.

To our knowledge, a unique feature of gaol among all C++ interval arithmetic libraries available is the implementation of *relational arithmetic operators* required by interval constraint arithmetic software (see Section 8.2, page 34). Hence, the game of the name: gaol is *not* JAIL (*Just Another Interval Library*). That situation should change in the near future, as relational arithmetic operators are required by the future IEEE 1788 standard for interval arithmetic.

This document is both a manual and a reference to use gaol. It assumes a prior knowledge of interval arithmetic. Refer to the books and papers by Goldberg, Neumaier, and others [2, 4, 5, 1, 6] for a basic presentation of floating-point arithmetic, interval arithmetic and the use thereof.

The main entry point for interval arithmetic on the Web is Vladik Kreinovich's *Interval Computation site* (<http://www.cs.utep.edu/interval-comp/>).

Classes, methods, functions, macros, constants and variables available in the library but not described in this document are likely to change or to be removed. Consequently, they should be used with caution, if at all.

[†] For those readers who are not native English speakers, “gaol” should be pronounced jāl, like the word “jail”, of which it is a, chiefly British, variant.

[2] David Marc Goldberg. What every computer scientist should know about floating-point arithmetic. *ACM Computing Surveys*, 23(1):5–48, March 1991.

[4] IEEE. IEEE standard for binary floating-point arithmetic. Technical Report IEEE Std 754-1985, Institute of Electrical and Electronics Engineers, 1985. Reaffirmed 1990.

[5] Ramon Edgar Moore. *Interval Analysis*. Prentice-Hall, Englewood Cliffs, N. J., 1966.

[1] Götz Alefeld and Jürgen Herzberger. *Introduction to Interval Computations*. Academic Press Inc., New York, USA, 1983. Traduit par Jon Rokne de l'original Allemand ‘Einführung In Die Intervallrechnung’.

[6] Arnold Neumaier. *Interval methods for systems of equations*, volume 37 of *Encyclopedia of Mathematics and its Applications*. Cambridge University Press, 1990.

2

Installation

The installation procedure differs depending on your platform. The current release of gaol is supported on the following platforms:

- ix86-based computers and compatibles under Linux with GNU gcc/g++. Both 32 bits and 64 bits operating systems are supported;
- ix86_64-based computers under Mac OS X (gaol has been successfully tested on *Darwin*).

Gaol used to be available on UltraSparc-based computers under SUN Solaris 2.[5–8] with GNU gcc/g++. With no such architecture at hand anymore, it is no longer actively developed on it, though its support should not require too much work.

2.1 Getting the software

The official web page for gaol is <http://sourceforge.net/projects/gaol/>.

The latest versions of gaol come as a source-code tarball only, which should be compiled and installed specifically for the computer you intend to use. There are no precompiled versions.

2.2 Installing gaol from the source tarball on Unix and Linux

Installing gaol from the source archive is done in three steps, in accordance with the spirit of all GNU softwares: *configuration*, *building*, *installation*. These steps are described hereunder. In the following, the base directory of the gaol distribution as created by decompressing the archive will be referred as the *root directory of the distribution* (or simply, the root directory).

2.2.1 Prerequisites

In order to build and install gaol, you will need the following tools. Some of them are mandatory, some are only required if you intend to modify the code, and others are only optional (their absence will not prevent you from using gaol though some features might be unavailable).

Mandatory tools and programs

Gaol uses many features provided by the ANSI-standard ISO/IEC FDIS 14882 for the C++ language. As a consequence, you will need a recent C++ compiler in order to compile gaol—e.g. `gcc 3.0` or above.

Gaol relies either on IBM APMathlib or CRLibm floating-point arithmetic libraries. They must be properly installed on your system prior to configuring gaol. For your convenience, an archive of APMathlib is available on the gaol web site (<http://sourceforge.net/projects/gaol>). The CRLibm library is available on LIPForge (<http://lipforge.ens-lyon.fr/projects/crlibm/>).

Important note. Some assumptions are made concerning the accuracy of some functions provided by the standard mathematical library (`libm`). In particular, depending on the library chosen (`apmathlib` or `crlibm`), the following functions are considered to be computed to at most one ulp of accuracy:

Functions	APmathlib	CRLibm
cosh	•	
sinh	•	
tanh	•	•
acosh	•	•
asinh	•	•
atanh	•	•

Tools for maintainers

Gaol uses code produced by GNU Flex and GNU Bison for parsing the expression used to initialize an interval.

Any modification of the files

`gaol_interval_lexer.lpp`

or

`gaol_interval_parser.ypp`

requires the availability of these tools.

Optional tools

- `dot`. This program is used by `doxygen` (see below) to draw dependency graphs in the HTML documentation. It is part of the GraphViz package (<http://www.research.att.com/sw/tools/graphviz/>);
- `doxygen`. Tool similar to SUN Javadoc for the C++ language. It is available at <http://www.stack.nl/~dimitri/doxygen/index.html>. If you do not have it, you will not be able to regenerate the HTML documentation;
- `CppUnit`. This library for unit testing is available on SourceForge (<http://sourceforge.net/projects/cppunit>). It is required to test the proper compilation of gaol.

2.2.2 Configuration

Before actually compiling the library, you have to configure it for your platform by using the `configure` program located at the root of the `gaol` distribution. It accepts the following options:

- `--help`. Displays a list of all options. Note that only those described hereunder are supported;
- `--prefix=prefix-dir`. The root directory where the library will be installed. It defaults to `/usr/local`;
- `--libdir=lib-dir`. The directory where to put the libraries. It defaults to `prefix-dir/lib`;
- `--includedir=include-dir`. The directory where to put the header files. It defaults to `prefix-dir/include`;
- `--infodir=info-dir`. The directory where to put the documentation in `info` format. It defaults to `prefix-dir/info`;
- `--enable-shared[=yes/no]`. Creates or not a shared library. This option defaults to `yes` whenever shared libraries are supported by the current platform;
- `--with-mathlib=(apmathlib/crlibm)`. Specifies which mathematical library to use. The following libraries are currently supported.

apmathlib. The IBM APMathlib library, whose sources are in `3rd/mathlib`: it is built and installed along with `gaol`, unless `--with-mathlib-include` or `--with-mathlib-lib` says where an installed one is;

crlibm. The *Correctly Rounded Mathematical library* available at <http://lipforge.ens-lyon.fr/www/crlibm/>. This library should be installed and available before configuring `gaol`.

This option defaults to “`apmathlib`.”

- `--with-mathlib-include=PATH`. Set the path where are the headers for the mathematical library to `PATH`;
- `--with-mathlib-lib=PATH`. Set the path where is the library file for the mathematical library to `PATH`;
- `--with-cppunit-include=PATH`. Set the path where are the headers for `cppunit` to `PATH`;
- `--with-cppunit-lib=PATH`. Set the path where is the library file for `cppunit` to `PATH`;
- `--enable-debug[=yes/no]`. Adds or not debugging information to the library. Enable the use of debugging macros (see Section 16, page 61). This option defaults to `no`.
- `--enable-preserve-rounding[=yes/no]`. The library assumes that the rounding direction is never modified outside of `gaol`, which allows to set it once and for all to “upward” at initialization (see Section 3.1, page 10). This option defaults to `no`. You should define this option to `yes` if you use `gaol` together with libraries or programs that manipulate the rounding direction, or that require the rounding direction to be to the nearest;

- `--enable-optimize[=yes/no]`. Compiles gaol with full optimization turned on. This option defaults to `yes`;
- `--enable-fast-math[=yes/no]`. Compiles gaol with fast but less accurate transcendental and power operators. This option defaults to `yes`;
- `--enable-exceptions[=yes/no]`. If enabled, errors should be reported by throwing an exception (see Section 15.1, page 58). If disabled, errors are reported by calling `gaol_error()`, which prints a message to the standard error channel. This option defaults to `yes`;
- `--enable-asm[=yes/no]`. Allows the use of assembler code in some parts of gaol. For most platforms, assembler code is used only to switch the rounding direction of the FPU. On ix86, assembler code is also used for many primitives. This option defaults to `yes`. On ix86, disabling the assembler support should be done with caution, depending on the propensity of your compiler to wrongly optimize code using floating-point instructions (which is high for versions of `gcc` prior to 4.1);
- `--enable-relations=kind`. Defines the kind of relation to use for relational symbols (`=`, `<=`, ...) to be *kind*. Possible values for *kind* are `certainly`, `set`, and `possibly` (see Section 7, page 21). The default is `certainly`;
- `--verbose-mode[=yes/no]`. Allows information messages to be sent to the standard output (such as messages to report automatic initialization and cleanup). The default is `yes`.
-

Note that, as usual, `--disable-xxx` is equivalent to `--enable-xxx=no`. Moreover, `--enable-xxx` is equivalent to `--enable-xxx=yes`.

Configuration examples

First, go to the root directory. If you simply type

```
% ./configure
```

you will create a shared library with full optimization, which will be installed in `/usr/local`.

By issuing

```
% ./configure --enable-debug \
               --prefix=/usr1/local --infodir=/export/info
```

you will create a library including debugging information that will be installed in the root directory `/usr1/local` except for the info files, which will be installed in the `/export/info` directory.

Missing optional tools are reported during the configuration process, though they do not prevent you from building the library. The configuration is aborted if some important tool or library is missing.

2.2.3 Building

After having configured gaol, you can now type

```
% make
```

in the root directory to build the library and its documentation (**pdf** and **html** files).

The targets for the **Makefile** in the root directory are:

- **all**. Similar to calling **make** without any argument;
- **doc**. Create the manual in both **pdf** and **html** formats;
- **html**. Create only the **html** reference;
- **check**. Test the library by compiling some benchmarks and checking their output against the expected one;
- **clean**, **distclean**, **maintainer-clean**. These are standard options for a GNU standard compliant **Makefile**. The **clean** option erases all files created during the building process; the **distclean** erases also the files created during the configuration process; **maintainer-clean** is meant to be used by maintainers only since it might erase files needing special tools to be re-created as well;
- **install**. Install the library in the directories specified at configuration time.

2.2.4 Installation

To install gaol on your system, just type

```
% make install
```

Remember that the directories you have chosen to install the libraries into, must be accessible to your compiler, i.e. they must appear in the paths contained in the relevant environment variables:

- **LIBRARY_PATH** for static libraries,
- **LD_LIBRARY_PATH** for dynamic libraries,
- ...

to be able to use the library once installed.

3

An overview of gaol

In this chapter, we will assume that gaol has already been properly installed, and that the libraries and header files are accessible to your compiler.

Let us consider the following program to compute the range of the function

$$f(x, y) = (1 + (x + y)^2(19 - 14x + 3x^2 - 14y + 6xy + 3y^2)) \\ (30 + (2x - 3y)^2(18 - 32x + 12x^2 + 48y - 36xy + 27y^2))$$

for $x \in [-2, 2]$ and $y \in [-2, 2]$.

Example

```
1 #include <iostream>
2 #include <gaol/gaol.h>
3
4 int main(void)
5 {
6     gaol::init();
7
8     interval
9         x(-2,2),
10        y(-2,2), z;
11
12    z=(1+sqr(x+y)*(19-14*x+3*sqr(x)-14*y+6*x*y+3*sqr(y)))*
13        (30+sqr(2*x-3*y)*(18-32*x+12*sqr(x)+
14            48*y-36*x*y+27*sqr(y)));
15
16    std::cout << "z = " << z << std::endl;
17
18    gaol::cleanup();
19    return 0;
20 }
```

First, note that we have to include the `gaol/gaol.h` header file in order to use all the facilities provided by gaol. All the functions, classes, constants and types defined in gaol are embedded into the `gaol` namespace. The `gaol/gaol.h` header imports the whole namespace such that it is not necessary to use the `gaol` prefix. Alternatively, you may include the `gaol/gaol` header instead of `gaol/gaol.h` and add `using` directives to only import what you actually need.

The call to `gaol::init()` on Line 6 is related to the use of the so-called *trust rounding mode* (see next section): it switches the rounding mode of the floating-point unit towards $+\infty$ (if the library was compiled with `--preserve-rounding=no`) and calls some initialization code.

The `sqr(x)` function stands for *square of x* and is equivalent to `pow(x,2)`.

Let `f.cpp` be the name of the file containing the program above. To compile it with `g++`, we have to type the following command:

```
% g++ -o f f.cpp -lm -lultim -lgaol
```

were `ultim` corresponds to the `APMathlib` library.

We thus create the executable file `f`, using the `gaol` and `APMathlib` libraries—`APMathlib` is the *Accurate Portable Mathematical library* developed by IBM; it provides us with correctly rounded mathematical functions if they are not directly available on the given platform.

Executing `f`, we obtain:

<code>z = [-56254330, 94177270]</code>	Output
--	--------

We then know that $f(x, y)$ ranges over $[-56254330, 94177270]$ when x and y range over $[-2, 2]$ independently.

3.1 The trust rounding mode

Floating-point interval arithmetic requires *outward rounding* in order to fulfill the *containment property*: for example, to add intervals $[a, b]$ and $[c, d]$, we compute $[\downarrow a + c \downarrow, \uparrow b + d \uparrow]$, where $\downarrow r \downarrow$ and $\uparrow r \uparrow$ return the greatest (resp. smallest) floating-point number smaller (resp. greater) than the real result of r . These two operations are performed by switching the rounding direction of the FPU towards, respectively, $-\infty$ and $+\infty$.

On most platforms, switching the rounding direction is costly. However, it is possible to cut down the number of switches by relying on the property that $\downarrow -r \downarrow = -\uparrow r \uparrow$. Consequently, one can replace nearly all downward rounding operations by upward rounding ones by negating appropriately twice the operations performed. The next step is then to only switch once and for all the rounding direction towards $+\infty$ at the beginning of a computation. This strategy reduces drastically the number of rounding direction switches at the cost of putting on the user the burden to ensure that the rounding direction be always set towards $+\infty$ before any computation involving intervals. This mode is called the *trust rounding mode* since we trust the user for ensuring that the rounding direction is always properly set.

Basically, all the user has to do when using the trust rounding mode is to switch the rounding direction towards $+\infty$ at the beginning of his program (this is performed automatically by `gaol::init()`), and then ensuring that it always remains set to that direction before performing any interval operation. This condition is never violated by any function or method of the library itself.



When `gaol` is used in a larger application that also relies on libraries that assume the rounding direction to be to the nearest, it is easier and safer to configure it with the trust rounding mode disabled (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

3.2 Common errors

In this section, we will review common errors made when using `gaol` in the—
forlorn?—hope that it will help prevent users from making them.

Definition 1 (Rounding down/up)

Given $\mathbb{R}$ the set of real numbers and $\mathbb{F}$ the set of floating-point numbers (*double*), we have:

$$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}: \begin{cases} \downarrow x \downarrow = \max\{y \in \mathbb{F} \mid y \leq x\} \\ \uparrow x \uparrow = \min\{y \in \mathbb{F} \mid y \geq x\} \end{cases}$$

3.2.1 Floating-point arithmetic and rounding

Programming with floating-point numbers is one of the few activities where one must always consider one's compiler defiantly. For example, let us consider the following piece of code:

Example

```

1 #include <gaol/gaol> // We do not import the gaol namespace
2
3 using gaol::interval;
4
5 int main(void) {
6     gaol::init();
7     interval one_tenth(0.1); BEWARE: wrong !
8
9     [some code using one_tenth]
10    gaol::cleanup();
11 }
```

Though a rational perfectly representable in decimal, 0.1 is not representable in binary (at least, not with a finite number of bits) and thus requires rounding. Obviously, the purpose of the user was to define an interval containing this value. However, 0.1 will be rounded *at compile time*, most certainly to the nearest representable floating-point number $\uparrow 0.1 \downarrow$. As a consequence, `one_tenth` will be a degenerate interval containing only $\uparrow 0.1 \downarrow$, and the *containment property* will be violated.

The right way to deal with rational constants that might not be perfectly representable as floating-point numbers is to stringify them, such that they can be correctly rounded downward and upward at *runtime*:

Example

```

1 #include <gaol/gaol>
2
3 using gaol::interval;
4
5 int main(void)
6 {
7     gaol::init();
8     interval one_tenth("0.1"), // OK: this is the right way
9         one_tenth2("1/10"); // Another possible way
10
11    [some code using one_tenth]
12    gaol::cleanup();
13    return 0;
14 }
```

Now, `one_tenth` will be the smallest floating-point interval enclosing 0.1. An interval like this one, containing at most two consecutive floating-point numbers, is called a *canonical interval*.

Definition 2 (Rounding to the nearest)

Given $\mathbb{R}$ the set of real numbers and $\mathbb{F}$ the set of floating-point numbers (*double*), we have:

$$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}: \uparrow x \downarrow = y \in \mathbb{F} \text{ s.t.} \\ x - y = \min\{|\delta| \in \mathbb{R} \mid \delta = x - z, \forall z \in \mathbb{F}\}$$

Definition 3 (canonical interval)

A non-empty interval $I = [a, b]$ is canonical if and only if $a \geq b^-$.

4

Initialization and cleanup

The following functions have to be called before using any functionality of the library and just after having used it for the last time.

Since Release 1.0 of gaol, there is an automatic initialization/cleanup feature that ensures that no problem will arise if the user forgets to explicitly call these functions.

bool `init` (int *dbg_lvl* = 0)

Initializes the variable `debug_level` (see Section 16, page 61) to the value of *dbg_lvl*.

If the library was not compiled with the `--enable-preserve-rounding` option, it sets the FPU control word according to the requirements of the `APMathlib` library and enforces rounding towards $+\infty$. In addition, it sets the number of digits to display for interval bounds to 16.

Returns `true` if the library was not already initialized and false otherwise. After its first call, the only effect of this function is to—possibly—set the debugging level to a new value.

bool `cleanup` (void)

Restores the state of the FPU to its value prior to the initialization of the gaol library.

In the current version, returns `true` the first time it is called and false afterwards.

Example

```
1 #include <gaol/gaol>
2
3 int main(void)
4 {
5     init(1); // First level of debugging requested
6
7     [Some code using interval arithmetic]
8
9     cleanup();
10    return 0;
11 }
```


5

Interval creation and assignment

The methods for creating an interval and assigning a new value to an already existing one are described in the following.

5.1 Constructors

One can create an interval in five different ways:

- by providing its left and right bounds:

Example

```
1 interval x(l,r);
```

where l and r are doubles or of a type that is castable into a double;

- by providing only one bound, for degenerate point intervals:

Example

```
1 interval x(v);
```

This is equivalent to: `interval x(v,v);`

- without providing any bound:

Example

```
1 interval x;
```

This is equivalent to:

Example

```
1 interval x(-GAOL_INFINITY,+GAOL_INFINITY);
```

where `GAOL_INFINITY` represents the infinity value of the double format (see Section 11.1, page 49);

- by copying an already existing interval (*copy constructor*):

Example

```
1 interval x(-12,12), y=x, z(x);
```

- by using a string representing an interval in the same format as the one used for input (see Section 10.1.1, page 43)

Example

```

1 interval x("[-23, inf]"),
2   y("5*0.1+dmin, 89*sinh(2.1)");

```

If the input string does not comply with the expected format, an empty interval is returned. The exception `gaol::input_format_error` is raised if the library was compiled with exception support; in the absence of exception support, the `gaol_error()` function is called to print an error message, and the `errno` variable is set to `-1` (`errno` is *not* modified when no error occurs).

- by using a string representing an interval in the same format as the one used for input (see Section 10.1.1, page 43) for each bound:

Example

```

1 // constructs x=[-4,2]
2 interval x("[-5,4]+1", "[4,6]-[3,2]");

```

Caution. you have to be very careful when creating an interval from floating-point constants. Remember that a rational number that is perfectly representable in the decimal base may require rounding in the binary base. For example, if you write the following statement:

Example

```

1 interval x(0.1);

```

you will *not* have created an interval containing 0.1 since this number has an infinite expansion in the binary base (i.e. it is impossible to represent it perfectly whatever the size of the mantissa may be). As a consequence, the constant 0.1 has very likely been rounded to the nearest floating-point number at compile-time. In such a case, you have to use a string instead:

Example

```

1 interval x("0.1");

```

Note. For performance reasons, interval constructors do not forbid to create intervals whose bounds are infinities of the same sign:

Example

```

1 interval I(GAOL_INFINITY, GAOL_INFINITY);
2 cout << I << endl;
3  <inf, inf>

```

However, such intervals are neither allowed nor supported in interval computation. They are not considered empty intervals and their use with interval operators leads to inconsistent results.

As an exception, creating an interval from the `inf` string constant leads to a legitimate interval:

Example

```

1 interval I("[-inf, -inf]");
2 interval J("<-inf, -inf>");
3 interval K("inf");
4 cout << I << endl;

```

```

5 cout << J << endl;
6 cout << K << endl;
7  [-inf, -1.797693134862316e+308]
8  [-inf, -1.797693134862316e+308]
9  [1.797693134862316e+308, inf]

```

5.2 Straight assignment

It is possible to assign a new value to an already existing interval in three different ways:

- by copying another interval:

Example

```

1 interval x(-12,12),
2     y; // Here, y is  $[-\infty + \infty, ]$ 
3 y = x; // Now, y is [-12, 12]

```

- by using a string whose format follows the one expected for input (see Section 10.1, page 43).

Example

```

1 interval x;
2 x = "[-inf, 123]";

```

- by using a double:

Example

```

1 interval x;
2 x = 1234.5; // Now, x is [1234.5, 1234.5]

```

Note that there is no method for modifying a bound of an interval since intervals must be considered as an atomic concept.

5.3 Assignment combined with an operation

The following assignment operators combine the value of the interval pointed to by **self** and the value of the right-hand side interval.

In this manual, we note **self** the object to which **this** is a pointer in C++.

interval& interval::operator&= (const interval& I)

■ $\text{self} \leftarrow \text{self} \cap I$

Assigns to **self** the interval resulting from the intersection of **self** and *I*.

Example

```

1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x &= interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-6, 12]

```

interval& interval::operator|= (const interval& I)

■ $\text{self} \leftarrow \text{self} \cup I$

Assigns to **self** the interval resulting from the union of **self** and *I*.

Example

```

1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x |= interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-12, 23]

```

`interval& interval::operator+= (const interval& I)`
`interval& interval::operator+= (double d)`

■ `self ← self + I`
 ■ `self ← self + d`

Assigns to `self` the interval resulting from adding `self` and `I` (resp. `d`).

Example

```
1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x += interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-18, 35]
```

`interval& interval::operator-= (const interval& I)`
`interval& interval::operator-= (double d)`

■ `self ← self - I`
 ■ `self ← self - d`

Assigns to `self` the interval resulting from subtracting `I` (resp. `d`) from `self`.

Example

```
1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x -= interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-35, 18]
```

`interval& interval::operator*= (const interval& I)`
`interval& interval::operator*= (double d)`

■ `self ← self × I`
 ■ `self ← self × d`

Assigns to `self` the interval resulting from multiplying `self` and `I` (resp. `d`).

Example

```
1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x *= interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-276, 276]
```

`interval& interval::operator/= (const interval& I)`
`interval& interval::operator/= (double d)`

■ `self ← self / I`
 ■ `self ← self / d`

Assigns to `self` the interval resulting from dividing `self` by `I` (resp. `d`).

Example

```
1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x /= interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-∞, +∞]
3 x /= interval::zero; // Now, x is ∅
```

`interval& interval::operator%= (const interval& I)`
`interval& interval::operator%= (double d)`

Assigns to `self` the interval resulting from dividing `self` by `I` (resp. `d`), using a *relational division* (see Section 8.2, page 34).

Example

```
1 interval x(-12,12);
2 x %= interval(-6,23); // Now, x is [-∞, +∞]
3 x %= interval::zero; // Now, x is [-∞, +∞]
```

6

Interval constants

For convenience, some useful intervals and some canonical intervals enclosing real constants are defined as static functions of the `interval` class:

Function	Value
<code>interval::emptyset()</code>	$\emptyset$
<code>interval::half_pi()</code>	$[\downarrow \frac{\pi}{2} \downarrow, \uparrow \frac{\pi}{2} \uparrow]$
<code>interval::minus_one_plus_one()</code>	$[-1, 1]$
<code>interval::negative()</code>	$[-\infty, 0]$
<code>interval::one()</code>	1
<code>interval::one_plus_infinity()</code>	$[1, +\infty]$
<code>interval::pi()</code>	$[\downarrow \pi \downarrow, \uparrow \pi \uparrow]$
<code>interval::positive()</code>	$[0, +\infty]$
<code>interval::two_pi()</code>	$[\downarrow 2\pi \downarrow, \uparrow 2\pi \uparrow]$
<code>interval::universe()</code>	$[-\infty, +\infty]$
<code>interval::zero()</code>	0

Example

```
1 cout << interval::emptyset;  
2  [empty]
```


7

Interval relations

Interval relations may be divided into three groups. Given I and J two intervals, we have:

1. *set relations*: intervals I and J are considered as sets of reals. For example:

$$I = J \Leftrightarrow (\forall x \in I, \exists y \in J: x = y) \wedge (\forall y \in J, \exists x \in I: x = y)$$

Basically, two intervals are equal in that mode if they have the same bounds;

2. *certainly relations*: the relations must be true for any tuple of values in the intervals. For example:

$$I = J \Leftrightarrow (\forall x \in I, \forall y \in J: x = y)$$

Then, two intervals are equal in that mode if they are both reduced to the same value;

3. *possibly relations*: the relations are true if it exists at least one tuple verifying the corresponding real relation. For example:

$$I = J \Leftrightarrow (\exists x \in I, \exists y \in J: x = y)$$

Then, two intervals are equal in that mode whenever their intersection is not empty.

The kind of relation to associate to relation symbols such as `==` and `<=` is chosen when configuring the library (see Section 2.2.2, page 5). The other possible definitions are always available through the methods described hereunder.

7.1 Set relations

```
bool interval::set_contains (const interval& I) const
bool interval::set_contains (double d) const
```

- $I \subseteq \text{self}$
- $d \in \text{self}$

Returns true if I (resp. $\{d\}$) is included in **self**.

Example

```

1 interval x(-12,34), y(-12,5);
2
3 cout << x.set_contains(y) << endl;
4 cout << x.set_contains(interval::emptyset) << ' '
5     << y.set_contains(x) << ' '
6     << interval::emptyset.set_contains(x) << ' '
7     << interval::emptyset.set_contains(interval::emptyset)
8     << endl;
9  true true false false true

```

bool interval::set_strictly_contains (const interval I) const
bool interval::set_strictly_contains (double d) const

- $I \subset \text{self}$
- $d \in \text{self}$

Returns true if I (resp. $\{d\}$) is strictly included in **self**

Example

```

1 interval x(-10,12), y(-10, 11), z, t, u(10.5);
2
3 cout << boolalpha
4     << x.set_strictly_contains(y) << ' '
5     << z.set_strictly_contains(t)
6     << ' ' << x.set_strictly_contains(u) << ' '
7     << interval::emptyset.set_strictly_contains(
8         interval::emptyset)
9     << ' ' << u.set_strictly_contains(
10        interval::emptyset) << endl;
11  false false true true true

```

bool interval::set_disjoint (const interval& I) const

- $*this \cap I = \emptyset$

Returns true if the intersection of **self** and I is empty.

Example

```

1 interval a(2,4), b(6,dmax);
2 cout << a.set_disjoint(b) << " "
3     << interval::emptyset.set_disjoint(interval::emptyset);
4  true true

```

bool interval::set_eq (const interval& I) const

- $\forall x \in \text{self} \exists y \in I: x = y \wedge \forall y \in I, \exists x \in \text{self}: y = x$

Returns true if intervals **self** and I are equal when considered as sets of reals.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,dmax).set_eq(interval(4,dmax)) << " "
2     << interval::emptyset.set_eq(interval::emptyset) << endl;
3  true true

```

bool interval::set_neq (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self} \forall y \in I: x \neq y \vee \exists y \in I \forall x \in \text{self}: y \neq x$

Returns **true** if **self** and *I* are not equal when considered as sets of reals.

Example

```
1 cout << interval::universe.set_neq(interval::emptyset);
2  true
```

bool interval::set_le (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x < y \wedge \forall y \in I, \exists x \in \text{self}: y > x$

Returns **true** if the real set defined by **self** is strictly included in *I*.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(-4.5,3).set_le(interval(-10,10))
2 << interval::emptyset.set_le(interval(5,6))
3 << interval::emptyset.set_le(interval::emptyset);
4  true false
```

bool interval::set_leq (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x \leq y \wedge \forall y \in I, \exists x \in \text{self}: y \geq x$

Returns **true** if the real set defined by **self** is included in *I*.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4.5,6).set_leq(interval(4.5,6))
2 << interval(3.5,9).set_leq(interval(2,6))
3 << interval::emptyset.set_leq(interval::emptyset);
4  true false true
```

bool interval::set_ge (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x > y \wedge \forall y \in I, \exists x \in \text{self}: y < x$

Returns **true** if the real set defined by **self** strictly contains *I*.

bool interval::set_geq (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x \geq y \wedge \forall y \in I, \exists x \in \text{self}: y \leq x$

Returns **true** if the real set defined by **self** contains *I*.

7.2 Certainly relations

bool interval::certainly_eq (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \forall y \in I: x = y$

Returns **true** if **self** is certainly equal to *I*, which is true only when both intervals are degenerate and contain the same floating-point number.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(3,4).certainly_eq(interval(3,4))
2 << interval(-6).certainly_eq(interval(-6,-6))
3 << interval::universe.certainly_eq(interval::universe)
4 << interval::emptyset.certainly_eq(interval::emptyset)
5  false true false true
```

bool interval::certainly_neq (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \forall y \in I: x \neq y$

Returns true if self is certainly not equal to I .

bool interval::certainly_le (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \forall y \in I: x < y$

Returns true if self is certainly strictly less than I .

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4,5).certainly_le(interval(6,9))
2   << interval(4,5).certainly_le(interval(5,9))
3   << interval::emptyset.certainly_le(interval(4,6));
4  true false true
```

bool interval::certainly_leq (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \forall y \in I: x \leq y$

Returns true if self is certainly less or equal to I .

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4,5).certainly_leq(interval(6,9))
2   << interval(4,5).certainly_leq(interval(5,9))
3   << interval(5,9).certainly_leq(interval(4,5))
4   << interval(4,8).certainly_leq(interval(5,9))
5   << interval::emptyset.certainly_leq(interval(4,6));
6  true true false false true
```

bool interval::certainly_ge (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \forall y \in I: x > y$

Returns true if self is certainly strictly greater than I .

Example

```
1 cout << interval(8,10).certainly_ge(interval(4,8))
2   << interval::emptyset.certainly_ge(interval::emptyset);
3  false true
```

bool interval::certainly_geq (const interval& I) const

■ $\forall x \in \text{self}, \forall y \in I: x \geq y$

Returns true if self is certainly greater or equal to I .

Example

```
1 cout << interval(8,10).certainly_geq(interval(4,8))
2   << interval::emptyset.certainly_geq(interval::emptyset);
3  true true
```

bool interval::certainly_positive (void) const

■ $\text{self} \subseteq [0, +\infty]$

Returns true if self lower bound is greater or equal to zero.

Example

```
1 cout << interval::emptyset.certainly_positive()
2   << interval(4,5).certainly_positive()
3   << interval(-0.0,6).certainly_positive()
4   << interval(-6,0).certainly_positive();
5  true true true false
```

bool interval::certainly_strictly_positive (void) const

■ $\text{self} \subset [0, +\infty]$

Returns true if self lower bound is strictly greater than zero.

Example

```
1 cout << interval::emptyset.certainly_strictly_positive()
2   << interval(4,5).certainly_strictly_positive()
3   << interval(-0.0,6).certainly_strictly_positive()
4   << interval(-6,0).certainly_strictly_positive();
5  true true false false
```

bool interval::certainly_negative (void) const

■ $\text{self} \subseteq [-\infty, 0]$

Returns true if self lower bound is lower or equal to zero.

Example

```
1 cout << interval::emptyset.certainly_negative()
2   << interval(4,5).certainly_negative()
3   << interval(-6,0).certainly_negative()
4   << interval(-6,-5).certainly_negative();
5  true false true true
```

bool interval::certainly_strictly_negative (void) const

■ $\text{self} \subset [-\infty, 0]$

Returns true if self lower bound is strictly lower than zero.

Example

```
1 cout << interval::emptyset.certainly_strictly_negative()
2   << interval(4,5).certainly_strictly_negative()
3   << interval(-6,0).certainly_strictly_negative()
4   << interval(-6,-5).certainly_strictly_negative();
5  true false false true
```

7.3 Possibly relations

bool interval::possibly_eq (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x = y$

Returns true if self is possibly equal to I.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(5,10).possibly_eq(interval(6,100))
2   << interval::emptyset.possibly_eq(interval::emptyset);
3  true false
```

bool interval::possibly_neq (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x \neq y$

Returns true if self is possibly not equal to I

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4,5).possibly_neq(interval(4,5))
2   << interval(4,4).possibly_neq(interval(4,4))
3   << interval::emptyset.possibly_neq(interval::emptyset);
4  true false false
```

bool interval::possibly_le (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x < y$

Returns true if self is possibly strictly less than I.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).possibly_le(interval(3,7))
2   << interval(4,5).possibly_le(interval(2,4))
3   << ;interval(4,5).possibly_le(interval::emptyset)
4  true false false

```

bool interval::possibly_leq (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x \leq y$

Returns true if self is possibly less or equal to I.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).possibly_leq(interval(3,7))
2   << interval(4,5).possibly_leq(interval(2,4))
3   << ;interval(4,5).possibly_leq(interval::emptyset)
4  true true false

```

bool interval::possibly_ge (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x > y$

Returns true if self is possibly strictly greater than I

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).possibly_ge(interval(3,6))
2   << interval(4,5).possibly_ge(interval(5,6))
3   << interval(4,5).possibly_ge(interval(6,7))
4   << interval(4,5).possibly_ge(interval::emptyset);
5  true false false false false

```

bool interval::possibly_geq (const interval& I) const

■ $\exists x \in \text{self}, \exists y \in I: x \geq y$

Returns true if self is possibly greater or equal to I.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).possibly_geq(interval(3,6))
2   << interval(4,5).possibly_geq(interval(5,6))
3   << interval(4,5).possibly_geq(interval(6,7))
4   << interval(4,5).possibly_geq(interval::emptyset);
5  true true false false false

```

7.4 Relational Symbols

bool operator== (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns $I1.\text{set_eq}(I2)$, $I1.\text{certainly_eq}(I2)$, or $I1.\text{possibly_eq}(I2)$ depending on the default kind of relation chosen when configuring gaol (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

bool operator!= (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns `I1.set_neq(I2)`, `I1.certainly_neq(I2)`, or `I1.possibly_neq(I2)` depending on the default kind of relation chosen when configuring gaol (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

bool operator< (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns `I1.set_le(I2)`, `I1.certainly_le(I2)`, or `I1.possibly_le(I2)` depending on the default kind of relation chosen when configuring gaol (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

bool operator<= (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns `I1.set_leq(I2)`, `I1.certainly_leq(I2)`, or `I1.possibly_leq(I2)` depending on the default kind of relation chosen when configuring gaol (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

bool operator> (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns `I1.set_ge(I2)`, `I1.certainly_ge(I2)`, or `I1.possibly_ge(I2)` depending on the default kind of relation chosen when configuring gaol (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

bool operator>= (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns `I1.set_geq(I2)`, `I1.certainly_geq(I2)`, or `I1.possibly_geq(I2)` depending on the default kind of relation chosen when configuring gaol (see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

7.5 Interval-specific relations

bool interval::straddles_zero (void) const

■ $0 \in \text{self}$

Returns true if self contains zero.

	Example
1	interval x(0,4), y, z(-12,-5);
2	
3	cout << boolalpha << x.straddles_zero() << ' ' ,
4	<< y.straddles_zero() << ' ' ,
5	<< z.straddles_zero() << endl;
6	 true true false

Note. `I.straddles_zero()  $\equiv$  I.set_contains(interval::Real(0))`

bool interval::strictly_straddles_zero (void) const

■ `{0} ⊂ self`

Returns **true** if zero is included in the interior of **self**.

Example

```
1 interval x(0,4), y, z(-12,-5);
2
3 cout << boolalpha << x.strictly_straddles_zero() << ' '
4     << y.strictly_straddles_zero() << ' '
5     << z.strictly_straddles_zero() << endl;
6  false true false
```

Note. The method call to `I.strictly_straddles_zero()` is equivalent to `I.set_strictly_contains(interval::Real(0))`

bool `interval::is_a_double` (void) const

Returns **true** whenever the left and right bounds of the interval are equal.

Example

```
1 interval x(-12.5), y;
2
3 cout << boolalpha << x.is_a_double() << ' '
4     << y.is_a_double()
5     << interval::emptyset.is_a_double() << endl;
6  true false false
```

bool `interval::is_an_int` (void) const

Returns **true** whenever the left and right bounds of the interval are equal and castable into an integer (type `int`).

Example

```
1 interval x(-12.0), y;
2
3 cout << boolalpha << x.is_an_int() << ' ' << y.is_an_int()
4     << interval::emptyset.is_an_int() << endl;
5  true false false
```

bool `interval::is_canonical` (void) const

Returns **true** if **self** contains at most two floating-point numbers.

Example

```
1 interval x(0), y(-14,9);
2
3 cout << boolalpha << x.is_canonical() << ' ' <<
4     y.is_canonical() << ' ' <<
5     interval::emptyset << ' ' <<
6     interval::pi;
7  true false false true
```

bool `interval::is_empty` (void) const

■ `self = ∅`

Returns `true` if `self` is an empty interval.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4,5).is_empty()
2   << interval(5,4).is_empty()
3   << interval::emptyset.is_empty();
4  false true true
```

`bool interval::is_zero (void) const`

■ `self = [0, 0]`

Returns `true` if `self` is equal to the interval containing only 0.

Example

```
1 cout << interval::zero.is_zero()
2   << interval(0.0,0.0).is_zero()
3   << interval(-0.0,+0.0).is_zero()
4   << interval(0,5).is_zero()
5   << interval::emptyset.is_zero();
6  true true true false false
```

`bool interval::is_symmetric (void) const`

Returns `true` if the left bound of `self` is the opposite of the right bound.
An empty interval is not symmetric.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(-5,5).is_symmetric()
2   << interval::emptyset.is_symmetric() << endl;
3  true false
```

`bool interval::is_finite (void) const`

Returns `true` if both bounds are finite.

Example

```
1 cout << interval("[4,inf]").is_finite()
2   << interval::emptyset.is_finite()
3   << interval(5,80).is_finite()
4  false true true
```


8

Interval Arithmetic

The *containment principle* of (floating-point) interval arithmetic imposes that for any operation “ $\circ$ ”, and any intervals I and J , the following does hold:

$$I \circ J = \square\{i \circ j \mid i \in I, j \in J\}$$

where $\square$ is a function mapping any real set to the smallest floating-point interval containing it.

For example, if we consider the interval square root, we have:

$$\sqrt{I} = \square\{\sqrt{i} \mid i \in I\}$$

From monotonicity considerations, the square root of $[1, 2]$ is then $\sqrt{[1, 2]} = [1, \sqrt{2}]$. Now, another interpretation of the square root function is as follows:

$$\sqrt_r I = \square\{j \in \mathbb{R} \mid \exists i \in I: j^2 = i\}$$

This last definition stands for the *relational square root* and permits obtaining both negative and positive values. Hence, we have:

$$\sqrt_r[1, 2] = [-\sqrt{2}, \sqrt{2}]$$

This operator arises when we consider the relation

$$x^2 = y$$

which can alternatively be written

$$x = \sqrt_r y$$

Here, the *functional square root* is not suitable since it would induce the intersection of the domain of y with $[0, +\infty]$.

Some applications (mainly in the area of *constraint programming*) require the availability of such operators. As a consequence, gaol offers both functional and relational versions of the main arithmetic operators.

8.1 Functional Arithmetic

```
interval interval::operator+ (void) const
interval operator+ (const interval& I, double d)
interval operator+ (double d, const interval& I)
interval operator+ (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)
```

Addition of two intervals, or of one interval and a double.

```
interval interval::operator- (void) const
interval operator- (const interval& I, double d)
interval operator- (double d, const interval& I)
interval operator- (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)
```

Negation, or subtraction of two intervals, or of one interval and a double.

```
interval operator* (const interval& I, double d)
interval operator* (double d, const interval& I)
interval operator* (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)
```

Multiplication of two intervals, or of one interval and a double.

```
interval operator/ (const interval& I, double d)
interval operator/ (double d, const interval& I)
interval operator/ (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)
```

Functional division of two intervals, or of one interval and a double.

```
interval operator% (const interval& I, double d)
interval operator% (double d, const interval& I)
interval operator% (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)
```

Relational division of two intervals, or of one interval and a double.

```
interval sqrt (const interval& I)
```

■ $\sqrt{I}$

Functional square root of I .

```
interval sqr (const interval& I)
```

■ I^2

Square of I

```
interval pow (const interval& I, int b)
interval pow (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)
```

■ I^b

■ $I_1^{I_2}$

Power function. The former computes I to the integral power b , while the latter raises $I1$ to the interval power $I2$. If $I2$ is an `int` in disguise, the first function is used to improve accuracy.

The power function for interval exponents is not yet fully tested and should be used with care.

```
interval nth_root (const interval& I, int b)
```



Computes the b th functional root of I : for an odd b , the root of a negative number is the opposite of the root of its magnitude; for an even b , only the part of I in $[0, +\infty]$ is considered. Returns the empty set for $b = 0$.

`interval exp (const interval& I)`

Exponential of I .

`interval log (const interval& I)`

Natural logarithm of I .

8.1.1 Trigonometric functions

`interval cos (const interval& I)`

Returns the cosine of I .

`interval acos (const interval& I)`

Returns the arccosine of I .

`interval sin (const interval& I)`

Returns the sine of I .

`interval asin (const interval& I)`

Returns the arcsine of I .

`interval tan (const interval& I)`

Returns the tangent of I .

`interval atan (const interval& I)`

Returns the arctangent of I .

`interval atan2 (const interval& Y, const interval& X)`

Returns the hull of the angles in $(-\pi, \pi]$ of the points of ordinate in Y and abscissa in X , the point $(0, 0)$ left out, as the **atan2** of IEEE 1788-2015: **atan2** $([0], [0])$ is empty, and the result is $[-\pi, \pi]$ whenever the box holds points of the half-line $y = 0, x < 0$, where the angle is π , and points below it, where it is next to $-\pi$.

8.1.2 Hyperbolic functions

interval **cosh** (const interval& *I*)

Returns the hyperbolic cosine of *I*.

interval **acosh** (const interval& *I*)

Returns the hyperbolic arccosine of *I*.

interval **sinh** (const interval& *I*)

Returns the hyperbolic sine of *I*.

interval **asinh** (const interval& *I*)

Returns the hyperbolic arcsine of *I*.

interval **tanh** (const interval& *I*)

Returns the hyperbolic tangent of *I*.

interval **atanh** (const interval& *I*)

Returns the hyperbolic arctangent of *I*.

8.2 Relational Arithmetic

interval interval::operator% (double *d*) const
interval interval::operator% (const interval& *I*) const
interval operator% (double *d*, const interval& *I*)

■ $*this/I = \{z \in \mathbb{R} \mid \exists x \in *this, \exists y \in I: x = yz\}$

Relational division.

8.2.1 $(n + 1)$ -ary relational functions

Consider the relation $y = \cos x$ where x and y are interval variables. One would like to be able to express this relation in the equivalent way: $x = \text{acos } y$. However, one cannot use the *acos* function because its result is always included into the interval $[0, \pi]$. What we need here is a relational version of the *acos* function. But, since for any value x there are infinitely many values y verifying $x = \text{acos } y$, we have to take into account the domain of y . As a consequence, we define a new binary operator **acos_rel** whose definition is as follows:

$$\text{acos_rel}(Y, X) = \square\{x \in X \mid \exists y \in Y: y = \cos x\}$$

This is to be contrasted with the previous definition of the *acos* function:

$$\text{acos}(Y) = \square\{x \in \mathbb{R} \mid \exists y \in Y: x = \text{acos } y\}$$

Figure 8.1 presents the different results obtained when computing either **acos**(*J*) or **acos_rel**(*J*, *I*).

interval **acos_rel** (const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{acos_rel}(J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists y \in J: y = \cos x\}$$

Returns the *relational arccosine* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **asin_rel** (const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{asin_rel}(J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists y \in J: y = \sin x\}$$

Returns the *relational arcsine* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **atan_rel** (const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{atan_rel}(J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists y \in J: y = \tan x\}$$

Returns the *relational arctangent* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **acosh_rel** (const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{acosh_rel}(J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists y \in J: y = \cosh x\}$$

Returns the *relational hyperbolic arccosine* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **sqrt_rel** (const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{sqrt_rel}(J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists y \in J: y = x^2\}$$

Returns the *relational square root* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **nth_root_rel** (const interval& J, unsigned int n ,
const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{nth_root_rel}(J, n, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists y \in J: y = x^n\}$$

Returns the *relational inverse b -th root* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **invabs_rel** (const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{invabs_rel}(J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid |x| \in J\}$$

Returns the *relational inverse absolute value* of J w.r.t. I .

interval **div_rel** (const interval& K, const interval& J, const interval& I)

$$\blacksquare \text{div_rel}(K, J, I) = \square\{x \in I \mid \exists z \in K, \exists y \in J: z = xy\}$$

Returns the *ternary relational division* of K by J w.r.t. I .

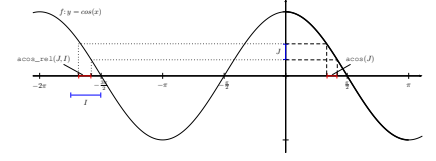


Figure 8.1: Relational cosine

Relational function that do not appear here are identical to their inverse function (e.g., the relational hyperbolic arcsine is identical to the hyperbolic arcsine, which should be used instead).

9

Interval functions

double interval::rad (void) const

■ $\text{rad}([a, b]) = \min\{r \mid [m - r, m + r] \supseteq [a, b]\}$

Returns the radius of **self**, the smallest double r such that $[m - r, m + r]$ contains **self**, m being **self**.midpoint(): $+\infty$ for an unbounded interval, NaN for the empty set (rad of IEEE 1788-2015).

void interval::mid_rad (double& m, double& r) const

Sets m to **self**.midpoint() and r to **self**.rad() (midRad of IEEE 1788-2015).

double interval::width (void) const

■ $\text{width}([a, b]) = \uparrow b - a \uparrow$

Returns the width of **self**. Returns NaN whenever the interval is empty.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4,6).width()
2   << (interval(1,next_float(1)).width()
3     == std::numeric_limits<double>::epsilon())
4   << interval::emptyset.width();
5  2 true nan
```

double interval::mig (void) const

Returns the *mignitude* of **self**. See the book by Hansen [3, chap. 3]. The mignitude of an interval $[a, b]$ is the smallest absolute value of the numbers in the interval, that is: 0 if the interval straddles 0, a if the interval is strictly positive, and $-b$ otherwise.

Note. The mignitude of the empty interval is a NaN.

Example

```
1 cout << interval(4,5).mig()
2   << interval(-6,-3).mig()
3   << interval(-3,8).mig();
4  4 3 0
```

[3] Eldon Robert Hansen. *Global Optimization Using Interval Analysis*. Pure and Applied Mathematics. Marcel Dekker Inc., 1992.

double interval::smig (void) const

Returns the *signed mignitude* of **self**. See Stahl's thesis [8, def. 1.3.28]. The signed mignitude of an interval $[a, b]$ is 0 if the interval straddles 0, a if the interval is strictly positive, and b otherwise.

Note. The signed mignitude of the empty interval is an NaN.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).mig()
2   << interval(-6,-3).mig()
3   << interval(-3,8).mig();
4  4 -3 0

```

double interval::mag (void) const

Returns the *magnitude* of **self**. the magnitude of an interval $[a, b]$ is the greatest absolute value of the numbers in the interval.

Note. The magnitude of the empty interval is a NaN.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).mag()
2   << interval(-6,-3).mag()
3   << interval(-10,5).mag();
4  5 6 10

```

double hausdorff (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

Returns the Hausdorff distance between the two sets defined by intervals $I1$ and $I2$, that is:

$$\text{hausdorff}(I_1, I_2) = \max(|\underline{I_1} - \underline{I_2}|, |\overline{I_1} - \overline{I_2}|)$$

Example

```

1 cout << hausdorff(interval(4,8), interval(5,10))
2  2

```

double interval::midpoint (void) const

Returns the midpoint of **self**. Given a and b two finite floating-point numbers and `std::numeric_limits<double>::max()` the largest positive floating-point number of type double, we have the following cases:

$$\left\{ \begin{array}{ll} \text{midpoint}(\emptyset) & = \text{NaN} \\ \text{midpoint}([-\infty, +\infty]) & = 0 \\ \text{midpoint}([-\infty, b]) & = -\text{std::numeric_limits<double>::max}() \\ \text{midpoint}([a, +\infty]) & = \text{std::numeric_limits<double>::max}() \\ \text{midpoint}([a, b]) & = \uparrow (a + b)/2 \uparrow \end{array} \right.$$

interval interval::mid (void) const

Returns the tightest interval enclosing the midpoint of `self`, which is included in `self`. With the same notations as for `midpoint()`, we have the cases:

$$\begin{cases} \text{mid}(\emptyset) &= \emptyset \\ \text{mid}([-\infty, +\infty]) &= [0, 0] \\ \text{mid}([-\infty, b]) &= [-\text{std::numeric_limits}<\text{double}>::\text{max}()] \\ \text{mid}([a, +\infty]) &= [\text{std::numeric_limits}<\text{double}>::\text{max}()] \\ \text{mid}([a, b]) &= [\downarrow (a+b)/2, \uparrow (a+b)/2] \end{cases}$$

double interval::left (void) const

■ `left([x, y]) = x`

Returns the left bound of `self`. Note that this method may return a finite floating-point number (i.e. neither a NaN, nor an infinity) even when the interval itself is empty.

double interval::right (void) const

■ `right([x, y]) = y`

Returns the right bound of `self`. Note that this method may return a finite floating-point number (i.e. neither a NaN, nor an infinity) even when the interval itself is empty.

interval abs (const interval& I)

■ `abs(I) = \{|x| \in \mathbb{R}^+ \mid x \in I\}`

Returns the absolute value of `I`.

Example

```

1 cout << abs(interval(-5,6))
2   << abs(interval(-4,-2));
3  [0, 6] [2, 4]
```

[7] Helmut Ratschek and Jon Rokne. Interval methods. In *Handbook of Global Optimization*, pages 751–828. Kluwer Academic, 1995.

double chi (const interval &I)

This function, introduced by Ratschek and Rokne [7], characterizes the degree of symmetry of intervals. Its definition is as follows:

$$\text{For } I = [a, b], \quad \text{chi}(I) = \begin{cases} -1 & \text{if } I = 0 \\ a/b & \text{if } |a| \leq |b| \\ b/a & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Example

```

1 cout << chi(interval(3,6))
2   << chi(interval(-6,3))
3   << chi(interval::emptyset)
4   << chi(interval::universe)
5   << chi(interval("[-5,inf]"));
6  0.5 -0.5 NaN 1 0
```

interval min (const interval &I, const interval &J)

■ $\min([a, b], [c, d]) = [\min(a, c), \min(b, d)]$

Returns the minimum of two intervals.

Example

```
1 cout << min(interval(5,6),interval(3,9))
2   << min(interval::emptyset,interval(3,8));
3  [3, 6] [empty]
```

interval **max** (const interval &*I*, const interval &*J*)

■ $\max([a, b], [c, d]) = [\max(a, c), \max(b, d)]$

Returns the maximum of two intervals.

Example

```
1 cout << max(interval(5,6),interval(3,9))
2   << max(interval::emptyset,interval(3,8));
3  [5, 9] [empty]
```

interval **floor** (const interval &*I*)

■ $[\text{floor}(I.\text{left}()), \text{floor}(I.\text{right}())]$

Example

```
1 cout << floor(interval(4.5,6.5))
2   << floor(interval("[-10.4,3.5]"));
3  [4, 6] [-11, 3]
```

interval **ceil** (const interval &*I*)

■ $[\text{ceil}(I.\text{left}()), \text{ceil}(I.\text{right}())]$

Example

```
1 cout << ceil(interval(4.5,6.5))
2   << ceil(interval("[-10.4,3.5]"));
3  [5, 7] [-10, 4]
```

interval **integer** (const interval &*I*)

■ $[\text{ceil}(I.\text{left}()), \text{floor}(I.\text{right}())]$

Narrows down the bounds to the closest integers. Note that the resulting bounds are still double numbers, and may therefore not be representable with integral types.

Example

```
1 cout << integer(interval(4.5,6.5));
2  [5, 6]
```

9.1 Splitting methods

void interval::**split** (interval& *I1*, interval& *I2*) const

Splits **self** into two parts using `midpoint()`; returns the left part in *I1* and the right part in *I2*.
I1 or *I2* may be equal to **self**.

Example

```

1 interval I1a, I2a,
2     I3(1.0,next_float(1.0)),
3     I1b, I2b;
4 interval(4,5).split(I1a,I2a);
5 I3.split(I1b,I2b);
6 cout << I1a << " " << I2a << " "
7     << (I1b==1.0) << " " << (I2b==I3) << endl;
8  [4, 4.5] [4.5, 5] true true

```

interval interval::split_left (void) const

■ $\text{split_left}([a, b]) = [a, \uparrow(a+b)/2 \uparrow]$

Splits **self** into two parts using `midpoint()` and returns the left part.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).split_left();
2  [4, 4.5]

```

interval interval::split_right (void) const

■ $\text{split_right}([a, b]) = [\uparrow(a+b)/2 \uparrow, b]$

Splits **self** into two parts using `midpoint()` and returns the right part.

Note. The left bound of the result is rounded up such that there is the least overlap possible with the interval returned by `split_left()`.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,5).split_right();
2  [4.5, 5]

```

9.2 Union and intersection

interval operator& (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

■ $I1 \cap I2$

Returns the interval resulting from the intersection of *I1* and *I2*.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(4,6) & interval(5,9);
2  [5, 6]

```

interval operator| (const interval& I1, const interval& I2)

■ $I1 \cup I2$

Returns the interval resulting from the union of *I1* and *I2*.

Example

```

1 cout << interval(3,6) | interval(9,12);
2  [3, 12]

```


10

Input/output

10.1 Reading intervals

`istream& operator>> (ostream& in, interval& I)`

Reads an interval from the input stream *in* and assigns it to *I*. If the string read is syntactically ill-formed, an `input_format_error` exception is thrown (see Section 15.1, page 58) if the library was compiled with exceptions enabled (see Section 2.2.2, page 5); alternatively, it prints an error message to `cerr` and aborts if exceptions were disabled.

10.1.1 Input format

A string to be translated into an interval must have the following syntax (with terminals in lower case and non-terminals in slanted upper case):

```
ITV_EXPR
: PARSED_INTERVAL
| ITV_EXPR + ITV_EXPR
| ITV_EXPR - ITV_EXPR
| ITV_EXPR * ITV_EXPR
| ITV_EXPR / ITV_EXPR
| - ITV_EXPR
| + ITV_EXPR
| ITV_FUNCTION_CALL
| ( ITV_EXPR )
;

ITV_FUNCTION_CALL
: cos ( ITV_EXPR )
| sin ( ITV_EXPR )
| tan ( ITV_EXPR )
| atan2 ( ITV_EXPR , ITV_EXPR )
| acos ( ITV_EXPR )
| asin ( ITV_EXPR )
| atan ( ITV_EXPR )
| cosh ( ITV_EXPR )
```

```

| sinh ( ITV_EXPR )
| tanh ( ITV_EXPR )
| acosh ( ITV_EXPR )
| asinh ( ITV_EXPR )
| atanh ( ITV_EXPR )
| exp ( ITV_EXPR )
| log ( ITV_EXPR )
| pow ( ITV_EXPR , ITV_EXPR )
| sqrt ( ITV_EXPR )
| nth_root ( ITV_EXPR , ITV_EXPR )
;

PARSED_INTERVAL
: EXPRESSION
| empty // Empty interval
| [ EXPRESSION ]
| [ EXPRESSION , EXPRESSION ]
| < EXPRESSION , EXPRESSION >
| [ empty ] // Empty interval
;

EXPRESSION
: NUMBER
| dmin // Smallest positive floating-point number
| dmax // Largest positive floating-point number
| pi
| inf // Floating-point positive ‘infinity’
| EXPRESSION + EXPRESSION
| EXPRESSION - EXPRESSION
| EXPRESSION * EXPRESSION
| EXPRESSION / EXPRESSION
| - EXPRESSION
| + EXPRESSION
| FUNCTION_CALL
| ( EXPRESSION )
;

FUNCTION_CALL
: cos ( EXPRESSION )
| sin ( EXPRESSION )
| tan ( EXPRESSION )
| atan2 ( EXPRESSION , EXPRESSION )
| acos ( EXPRESSION )
| asin ( EXPRESSION )
| atan ( EXPRESSION )
| cosh ( EXPRESSION )
| sinh ( EXPRESSION )
| tanh ( EXPRESSION )
| acosh ( EXPRESSION )
| asinh ( EXPRESSION )
| atanh ( EXPRESSION )
| exp ( EXPRESSION )
| log ( EXPRESSION )
| pow ( EXPRESSION , EXPRESSION )

```

```

| sqrt ( EXPRESSION )
| nth_root ( EXPRESSION , EXPRESSION )
;

```

Spaces are not significant except in numbers. The “+” sign before numbers and `inf` is optional. Note that the second argument of `nth_root` shall be a point interval that can be evaluated as an integer. Otherwise, an `invalid_action_error` exception is thrown (or an error is reported, depending on whether exceptions were enabled or not at configuration time—see Section 2.2.2, page 5).

If a rational number is not representable in the floating-point format, it is replaced by the smallest floating-point interval containing it. The notations “*n*” and “[*n*]” are equivalent.

The two bounds in the string “<*a*, *b*>” must be expressions that evaluate to the same value even for different rounding directions. An `input_format_error` exception is raised otherwise.

Example

```

1 interval x("[4, 6*7]");
2 interval y("[-inf, dmax]");
3 interval z("[3.14,3.15]/8", "[3.14,3.15]/7");
4 interval t("[3.14,3.15]/[7,8]");

```

Caution 1: Case is significant for all the operators.

Caution 2: Numbers appearing in the string shall not have more than 15 digits, otherwise their translation to floating-point numbers is not guaranteed to be correct.

Expressions in bounds are evaluated using interval arithmetic; the left (resp. right) bound is then used, depending on the side it appeared in.

Contrary to constructors that take numeric constants as parameters, expressions such as “`inf`” or “<`-inf`, `-inf`>” lead to legitimate intervals (see the note Page 16).

10.2 Writing intervals

Intervals may be printed into a stream like any other C++ primitive type by using the “<<” operator.

`ostream& operator<< (ostream& out, const interval& I)`

Prints the interval *I* to the output stream *out*. The way the intervals are actually displayed depends on the active format (see next section). However, whatever the format, an empty interval is always displayed as [empty]

10.2.1 Converting intervals to strings

For convenience, the `interval` class provides a conversion operator into the standard C++ type `string`.

Example

```

1 interval I(3,4);
2 string s = "test line embedding " + string(I) + " as a string";
3 // Now, s is "test line embedding [3, 4] as a string"

```

10.2.2 Output format

Intervals may be displayed following four different formats:

agreeing. By printing all the digits that are the same in the left and right bounds followed by an interval containing the remaining digits:

“3.141~[5926, 6001]” stands for “[3.1415926, 3.1416001]”

Note that if the bounds do not have any agreeing digit, there will still be a tilde before the bracketed part:

```
Example
1 interval::format(interval_format::agreeing);
2 std::cout << interval(4,6) << std::endl;
3  ~[4., 6.]
```

bounds. By printing the bounds between square brackets. Degenerate intervals whose left and right bound are equal are printed with angles:

```
Example
1 interval::format(interval_format::bounds);
2 std::cout << interval(3,5) << std::endl;
3  [3, 5]
4 std::cout << interval(4) << std::endl;
5  <4, 4>
```

width. by printing their midpoint and their width:

```
Example
1 interval::format(interval_format::width);
2 std::cout << interval(4,5) << std::endl;
3  4.5 (+/- 0.5)
```

hexa. by printing the hexadecimal representation of their left and right bounds (useful when one wants to know the precise value of the bound without being affected by the round-off error due to binary-to-decimal conversion):

```
Example
1 interval::format(interval_format::hexa);
2 std::cout << interval("0.1") << std::endl;
3  [3fb9999999999999, 3fb9999999999999a]
```

Note that *the **bounds** format is the only one recognized at present as an input* (see previous section).

The choice of the format to use is made through the following static methods:

```
void interval::format(interval_format::format_t f) static
interval_format::format_t interval::format(void) static
```

The first form of the method allows modifying the format to use in subsequent printing of intervals. The second form reports what is the current form in use. It returns a value of type `interval_format::format_t` (see below and 10.2.4 for an example of use).

interval_format

struct

Structure type used to choose the output format for intervals. It has four possible values of type `interval_format::format_t`:

- `interval_format::agreeing`.
- `interval_format::bounds`.
- `interval_format::width`.
- `interval_format::center`.
- `interval_format::hexa`.

Example

```
1 interval I(interval::pi);
2
3 interval::format(interval_format::agreeing);
4 cout << I << "\n";
5 // Prints 3.14159265358979~[3, 4]
6 // The ~[] part is dropped if the bounds agree on all digits
7
8 interval::format(interval_format::bounds);
9 cout << I << "\n";
10 // Prints [3.141592653589793, 3.141592653589794]
11
12 interval::format(interval_format::width);
13 cout << I << "\n";
14 // Prints 3.141592653589793 (+/- 2.220446049250313e-16)
15
16 interval::format(interval_format::center);
17 cout << I << "\n";
18 // Prints 3.141592653589793
19
20 interval::format(interval_format::hexa);
21 cout << I << "\n";
22 // Prints [400921fb54442d18, 400921fb54442d19]
```

10.2.3 Choosing the number of digits to display

You can manipulate the number of digits to print by using the `precision()` static methods of the interval class:

`std::streamsize interval::precision (void)`

Returns the current number of digits used for printing bounds of intervals. See example below.

`std::streamsize interval::precision (std::streamsize n)`

Set the number of digits to use for printing bounds to n . In addition, returns the number of digits previously used. See example below.

10.2.4 Example

Example

```
1 #include <iostream>
2 #include <gaol/gaol.h>
3
4 using std::cout;
5 using std::endl;
6
7 int main(void)
8 {
9     gaol::init();
10    interval::precision(4);
11    interval::format(interval_format::bounds);
12    cout << interval::pi << endl;
13
14    if (interval::format() != interval_format::bounds) {
15        cout << interval::pi << endl;
16    } else {
17        int old_prec = interval::precision(16);
18        interval::format(interval_format::width);
19        cout << interval::pi << endl;
20    }
21    gaol::cleanup();
22 }
```

On a Pentium-based PC, the previous program has the following output:

Output

```
[ 3.142, 3.142 ]
3.141592653589793 (+/- 2.220446049250313e-16)
```

The first call to `interval::format()` is unnecessary since the default format is `interval_format::bounds`.

Note. Translating an interval into a string and then reading it back as an interval is likely to produce an inaccurate or plain wrong result if you choose a precision different from 17. It is however useless to specify a precision greater than 17 for the `double` format since the extra digits would be garbage.

The `interval::pi` constant is a predefined *canonical* interval containing π (see Section 6, page 19). Here, the width of the interval is equal to the ϵ of the format.

The `interval_format::width` format may be useful whenever the number of digits displayed is insufficient to know whether the result is a single floating-point number or an interval whose size is very small (consider for example the first result above), because *we have the guarantee that if the actual width of an interval is greater than zero, the width displayed will also be different from zero*. Another indication is that a degenerate interval is displayed as a floating-point number.

11

Floating-point numbers

11.1 Floating-point constants

In addition to the constants available through `numeric_limits<double>`, gaol defines the following double constants:

Constant (double)	Value
<code>two_pi</code>	$\uparrow 2\pi \uparrow$
<code>pi</code>	$\uparrow \pi \uparrow$
<code>half_pi</code>	$\uparrow \frac{\pi}{2} \uparrow$
<code>pi_dn</code>	$\downarrow \pi \downarrow$
<code>pi_up</code>	$\uparrow \pi \uparrow$
<code>half_pi_dn</code>	$\downarrow \frac{\pi}{2} \downarrow$
<code>half_pi_up</code>	$\uparrow \frac{\pi}{2} \uparrow$
<code>ln2_dn</code>	$\downarrow \ln 2 \downarrow$
<code>ln2_up</code>	$\uparrow \ln 2 \uparrow$
<code>two_power_53</code>	2^{53}
<code>GAOL_NAN</code>	NaN (quiet)
<code>GAOL_INFINITY</code>	$+\infty$

11.2 Floating-point functions

`bool feven (const double& x)`

Returns true whenever *x* is even.

This function should not be used with infinity and NaN arguments.

	Example	
1	<code>assert(feven(3.0));</code>	<code>// false</code>
2	<code>assert(feven(3.5));</code>	<code>// false</code>
3	<code>assert(feven(4.0));</code>	<code>// true</code>
4	<code>assert(feven(4.5));</code>	<code>// false</code>
5	<code>assert(feven(GAOL_INFINITY));</code>	<code>// always true</code>
6	<code>assert(feven(GAOL_NAN));</code>	<code>// always false</code>

`double next_float (double x)`

Returns the smallest **double** greater than x .

double `previous_float` (**double** x)

Returns the greatest **double** smaller than x .

bool `is_signed` (**double** x)

Returns true whenever x is signed. No provision is made concerning the fact that x is a NaN. If you only want to test for negative numbers (and -0), you will have to test also whether x is a NaN by using the `isnan()` predicate in `math.h`.

double `minimum` (**double** x , **double** y)

Returns the minimum **double** value of x and y . This function is commutative and returns -0 when comparing -0 and $+0$, i.e.:

$$\begin{cases} \min(x, y) &= \min(y, x), & \forall x \neq \text{NaN}, \forall y \neq \text{NaN} \\ \min(x, \text{NaN}) &= \min(\text{NaN}, x) = \text{NaN}, & \forall x \\ \min(-0, 0) &= \min(0, -0) = -0 \end{cases}$$

double `maximum` (**double** x , **double** y)

Returns the maximum **double** value of x and y . This function is commutative and returns $+0$ when comparing -0 and $+0$, i.e.:

$$\begin{cases} \max(x, y) &= \max(y, x), & \forall x \neq \text{NaN}, \forall y \neq \text{NaN} \\ \max(x, \text{NaN}) &= \max(\text{NaN}, x) = \text{NaN}, & \forall x \\ \max(-0, 0) &= \max(0, -0) = 0 \end{cases}$$

ULONGLONGINT

macro

Macro standing for an unsigned integral data type with a size equal to 8 bytes (usually `unsigned long long int`).

ULONGLONGINT `nb_fp_numbers` (**double** a , **double** b)

Returns the number of floating-point numbers in the interval $[a, b]$. In particular, we have:

- `nb_fp_numbers(a, next_float(a)) == 2`
- `nb_fp_numbers(a, a) == 1`

Note. As a precondition, a shall be lower or equal to b .

Returns `numeric_limits<ULONGLONGINT>::max()` if either a or b is a NaN or an infinity. In addition, raises an `invalid_action_error` exception (see Section 15.1, page 58) or calls `gaol_error` depending on the way the library was configured.

12

Manipulating the FPU

The gaol library provides functions to manipulate the FPU and its flags. The main functions are the one described in the next section for modifying the rounding direction. As for now, gaol provides these facilities for the following platforms:

- ix86 and compatibles under Linux
- SPARC under Solaris
- ISO C99-compliant platforms

Whenever possible, inline assembler versions are used.

12.1 Rounding functions

void **round_downward** (void)

Sets the rounding direction mode towards $-\infty$.

void **round_nearest** (void)

Sets the rounding direction mode to the nearest/even.

void **round_zero** (void)

Sets the rounding direction mode to zero.

void **round_upward** (void)

Sets the rounding direction mode to $+\infty$.

12.2 Manipulating the FPU flags

The following functions allow to manipulate the FPU flags. See the documentation of the FPU for your machine for a description of these flags.

`void clear_inexact (void)`

Clears the `inexact` flag of the FPU.

Warning: This function is currently unavailable on some platforms. For these platforms, a warning is issued when the function is called.

`int get_inexact (void)`

Returns a non-zero value whenever the last floating-point operation was performed with rounding. The associated FPU flag is a persistent one. As a consequence, you should always clear it by calling `clear_inexact()` *before* performing the operation you want to test.

`unsigned short get_fpu_cw (void)`

Returns the value of the FPU control word.

Warning: This function is currently unavailable on some platforms. For these platforms, a warning is issued when the function is called.

`unsigned short get_fpu_sw (void)`

Returns the value of the FPU status word.

Warning: This function is currently unavailable on some platforms. For these platforms, a warning is issued when the function is called.

13

Version information

The library provides four constants to allow programs to determine at runtime with which version they are dynamically linked with. The versioning scheme adopted is the one used by the Apache Software Foundation described at <http://apr.apache.org/versioning.html>.

`unsigned int version_major` `const`

Major version of the library.

`unsigned int version_minor` `const`

Minor version of the library.

`unsigned int version_patch` `const`

Patch version of the library.

`const char *const version` `const`

Version of the library as a string.

	Example	
1	<code>const char *const version = "1.0.3";</code>	

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Additional functions

The following functions are utility functions not necessarily related to intervals or floating-point numbers.

```
template <typename T>  
bool odd (const T& x)
```

Returns **true** if x is odd and false otherwise. The T type may be any type providing the **&** (“bitwise **and**”) operator with the same semantics as the one for **ints**.

```
template <typename T>  
bool even (const T& x)
```

Returns **true** if x is even and false otherwise. The T type may be any type providing the **&** (“bitwise **and**”) operator with the same semantics as the one for **ints**.

15

Error handling

A program that uses gaol may report errors in two different ways:

- by throwing an exception;
- or by setting the `errno` variable.

The mechanism in use depends on the way the library is configured. If you use the option `--enable-exceptions=yes`, all errors are reported through exception throwing; otherwise, the `errno` variable is used. Relying on exceptions is more in the C++ spirit, though it may incur some overhead.

It is up to the user to comply with this mechanism when adding error reporting code to one's program. Gaol defines the following macro to be used whenever one wants to report an error.

gaol_ERROR (*excep,msg*)

macro

The behavior of the macro depends on the value chosen for the option `--enable-exceptions`: if exceptions are enabled, exception *excep* is raised with the message *msg*; otherwise, the program aborts with message *msg*.

Example

```
1 interval x;
2
3 [Code manipulating x]
4
5 if (x.is_empty()) {
6     gaol_ERROR(failure_error,"Emptiness of one interval");
7 }
```

The `gaol_error()` function is defined as follows:

void gaol_error (const char *const *err*)

void gaol_error (const char **file*, int *line*, const char **err*)

Displays a message on the standard error output. The ternary version should be called with the `GAOL_FILE_POS` macro for the first two parameters.

The `GAOL_FILE_POS` macro is described in the next section.

15.1 Exceptions

The library defines `gaol_exception` as a class to be used as a base class for all gaol exceptions. All of them provide at least the name of the file and the line number from where the exception has been thrown. As a facility, gaol defines the following macro:

GAOL_FILE_POS

macro

Expands itself into the first two arguments of any constructor for `gaol_exception` or one of its derived classes:

Example	
1	<code>if ([some condition]) {</code>
2	<code> throw gaol_exception(GAOL_FILE_POS,</code>
3	<code> "No additional information");</code>
4	<code>}</code>

All gaol exceptions can be sent to an output stream through the “<<” operator.

15.1.1 The `gaol_exception` exception

The `gaol_exception` class is the base class from which derive all gaol exceptions. It inherits from the C++ standard class `exception`.

Every exception class deriving from it must at least provide the name of the file and the line where the corresponding exception was thrown. As a consequence, the constructors for `gaol_exception` are as follows:

```
gaol_exception::gaol_exception (const char* f, unsigned l)
gaol_exception::gaol_exception (const char* f, unsigned l,
                                const char* e)
```

Constructs a `gaol_exception` being thrown from file *f* at line *l*. The second form permits adding some explanatory string *e*.

The class offers the following accessors:

```
const char* gaol_exception::file (void) const
```

Return the name of the file from where the exception was thrown.

```
unsigned int gaol_exception::line (void) const
```

Returns the line number in the file from where the exception was thrown.

```
const char* const gaol_exception::explanation (void) const
```

Returns a string explaining why the exception was thrown. Returns an empty string if no additional information was provided.

15.1.2 The `input_format_error` exception

The `input_format_error` exception is thrown whenever one attempts to create an interval from an invalid string. This situation may occur when reading an interval from a stream with the `>>` operator, or when creating an interval from a string.

This class, as all `gaol` exceptions, derives from `gaol_exception` (see Section 15.1.1, page 58). Its constructors have the same format than the ones for `gaol_exception`, namely:

```
input_format_error::input_format_error (const char* f, unsigned l)
input_format_error::input_format_error (const char* f, unsigned l, const char*
e)
```

Constructs an `input_format_error` being thrown from file *f* at line *l*.

The second form permits adding some explanatory string *e*.

The methods of the class are inherited from `gaol_exception` (see Section 15.1.1, page 58).

15.1.3 The `unavailable_feature_error` exception

This exception is thrown whenever an unavailable feature is requested.

This class, as all `gaol` exceptions, derives from `gaol_exception`. (see Section 15.1.1, page 58). Its constructors have the same format than the ones for `gaol_exception`, namely:

```
unavailable_feature_error::unavailable_feature_error
                                (const char* f, unsigned l)
unavailable_feature_error::unavailable_feature_error
                                (const char* f, unsigned l, const char* e)
```

Constructs an `unavailable_feature_error` being thrown from file *f* at line *l*. The second form permits adding some explanatory string *e*.

The methods of the class are inherited from `gaol_exception` (see Section 15.1.1, page 58).

15.1.4 The `invalid_action_error` exception

This exception is thrown whenever a function is called with invalid arguments (e.g. calling `nb_fp_numbers()` with NaNs as parameters).

This class, as all `gaol` exceptions, derives from `gaol_exception` (see Section 15.1.1, page 58). Its constructors have the same format than the ones for `gaol_exception`, namely:

```
invalid_action_error::invalid_action_error (const char* f,
                                              unsigned l)
invalid_action_error::invalid_action_error (const char* f,
                                              unsigned l, const char* e)
```

Constructs an `invalid_action_error` being thrown from file *f* at line *l*.

The second form permits adding some explanatory string *e*.

The methods of the class are inherited from `gaol_exception` (see Section 15.1.1, page 58).

15.2 Warnings

```
void gaol_warning (const char *warn)  
void gaol_warning (const char *file, int line, const char *warn)
```

Prints the message *warn* on the standard error output. The second form should be called with the `GAOL_FILE_POS` macro for the first two parameters.

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Debugging facilities

The debugging facilities described hereunder are available only if `gaol` has been configured with the debugging facilities enabled (see the `--enable-debug` option, Section 2.2.2, p. 5).

`int debug_level`

Global variable used to remember the current value of the debugging level. This variable is set when initializing the library. The variable is declared in the `gaol` namespace.

`GAOL_DEBUG (lvl,cmd)`

macro

Executes `cmd` if `lvl` is lower or equal to the current debugging level (see the variable `debug_level` above).

This macro defaults to nothing if the library was not configured with the `--enable-debug` option.

A possible use for this macro is as follows:

Example

```
1 interval x(-10,10);
2
3 [Some code]
4
5 GAOL_DEBUG(1,cout << "The value of x is " << x);
6 x += double_interval(3.5,4.5);
7 GAOL_DEBUG(2,cout << "Now the value of x is " << x);
```

The first message will be displayed whenever `gaol` has been configured with debugging facilities enabled (see the `--enable-debug` option). The second message will be displayed only if the debugging level is greater or equal to 2.

`GAOL_ASSERT`

macro

(`cond`) Tests whether `cond` holds. Aborts with an error message if it is not the case.

This macro defaults to nothing if the library was not configured with the `--enable-debug` option.

A possible use for this macro is as follows:

Example

```
1 int x;  
2 cout << "Give an integer no greater than 5: ";  
3 cin >> x;  
4 GAOL_ASSERT(x <= 5);
```

17

Profiling

The following functions permit computing the time used for a computation. The returned times are *user* times, meaning that delays induced by input/output operations and freezing during CPU switches in multi-programming environments are not taken into account.

If you need to keep track of several events, consider using an object of the `timepiece` class (see Section 17.1, page 64) instead of calling directly the functions below.

Warning. The precision of the timing functions depends on the platform used. For example, the precision on ix86-based machines is usually no better than 10 ms. What is more, despite the fact that the reported times are user times, they may vary from an execution to another, and can get larger on heavily loaded machines.

long `get_time` (void)

Returns the time in milliseconds since a certain unspecified moment.

This function should only be used to compute differences between two calls since the starting point may vary depending on the availability of `clock()` or `getrusage()` on the system.

Warning. if the function in use is the standard `clock()`, the time returned will wrap approximately every 72 minutes. Consequently, it is not safe to use `get_time()` in that case for processes requiring more than 72 minutes to execute.

void `reset_time` (void)

Resets the time counter. To be called just before executing some code to be profiled.

long `elapsed_time` (void)

Returns the time in milliseconds elapsed between now and the last call to `reset_time()`.

long `intermediate_elapsed_time` (void)

Returns the time in milliseconds elapsed between now and the last call to `reset_time()` or to `intermediate_elapsed_time()`.

Here is a typical example of use of the timing functions:

Example

```
1 int main(void)
2 {
3     reset_time();
4     for (unsigned int i=0;i<1000;++i) {
5         [Some time consuming operations]
6     }
7     cout << "Elapsed time: " << elapsed_time() << " ms." << endl;
8     return 0;
9 }
```

17.1 The `timepiece` class

A `timepiece` object allows to keep track of the time spent to perform a particular task. Since the counter used is local to the object, it is possible to monitor more than one such process.

17.1.1 Methods of the `timepiece` class

`void timepiece::start (void)`

Starts the `timepiece`.

`void timepiece::stop (void)`

Stops the `timepiece` and accumulates the time spent since the last call to `start()`.

`void timepiece::reset (void)`

Resets to zero the counter keeping track of the total time the `timepiece` was running.

`long timepiece::get_total_time (void) const`

Returns the total amount of time the `timepiece` was running (time between calls to `start()` and `stops`. The `timepiece` shall have been stopped by calling the `stop()` method before calling this one.

`long timepiece::get_intermediate_time (void) const`

Returns the amount of time spent since the last call to `start()`.

Example

```
1 int main(void)
2 {
3     timepiece t;
4     t.start();
5     for (unsigned int i=0;i<1000;++i) {
6         [Some time consuming operations]
7         cout << "Intermediate time: "
8             << t.get_intermediate_time() << " ms." << endl;
9     }
10    t.stop();
11    cout << "Elapsed time: " << t.get_total_time() << " ms." << endl;
12    return 0;
13 }
```


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Additional Documentation

18.1 Documentation on gaol

The primary reference is this manual. There is also an html reference for the code itself, which might be of interest only to developers seeking to understand/modify gaol.

18.2 References

The following articles and books have inspired in some way or another the devising of the gaol library and/or the writing of this manual.

- *Interval Arithmetic Specification*. Dmitri Chiriaev and G. William Walster. Draft revised May 1998.
- *The Extended Real Interval System*. G. William Walster. April 1998.
- *C++ Interval Arithmetic Programming Reference*. Sun Microsystems, Inc. October 2000, revision A.
- *Interval Arithmetic: From Principles to Implementation*. T. Hickey, Q. Ju, and M. H. van Emden. Tech. Rep. CS-99-202, CS Dept. Brandeis U, July 1999.

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Reporting bugs

All bugs and suggestions for improvement shall be submitted through the appropriate form available on the web site:

<http://sourceforge.net/projects/gaol/>

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Contributors

The main implementor and lead designer for the gaol library is Frédéric Goualard (goualard@users.sourceforge.net).

The `interval pow(const interval&, const interval&)` function was designed by Marc Christie (christie@users.sourceforge.net).

The code for the multiplication and the division is largely inspired from the one presented by Tim Hickey, Qun Ju and Maarten Van Emden in *Interval Arithmetic: from Principles to Implementation* Journal of the ACM 48(5):1038–1068, september 2001.

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Version 2, June 1991

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